令 和 7 年 度 入 学 試 験 問 題

外国語　英語

注 意 事 項

試験開始の合図があるまで，この冊子を開けないこと。

1．この冊子の本文は1ページから12ページまである。印刷の不鮮明な部分，ページの脱落などがあった場合は申し出ること。

2．答案用紙には，記入例のとおりに受験番号と氏名を記入すること。

記入例

受験番号	1	2	3	4	5	氏名	大塚　茶織

3．解答は，すべて答案用紙に記入すること。

4．答案用紙の解答欄に，解答と関係のない文字，記号，符号などを記入しないこと。また，答案用紙の欄外の余白には，何も書かないこと。

5．この冊子は持ち帰ること。

1 次の英文を読み，設問に答えなさい。（＊を付した語には，注があります。）

Before the arrival of coffee and tea, alcohol was being consumed in Europe morning, noon, and night; not only in pubs after dark but for breakfast at home and even in the workplace, where it was routinely given to laborers on their breaks. The English mind in particular was dimmed most of the day by a more or less constant intake of alcohol. Campaigns for avoiding alcohol sprang up from time to time, but without a substitute drink they failed to gain support.

Enter coffee.

As early as 1660, writer and historian James Howell noted that coffee had made the nation more sober and that whereas clerks and other workers used to drink beer or wine in the morning, which caused dizziness and made many unfit for business, they could now spend time enjoying their meals with this "wakeful and civil" drink.

(1) Howell deserves credit for having recognized so early the impact of coffee on the conduct of work, for it would prove important years later when the English economy would begin its shift from a reliance on physical labor to mental labor. Long before the coffee break there was the beer break, commonly offered to laborers doing physical work outdoors; mental clearness was not a priority, nor was attention to clock time. For laborers working with machines, however, a mind dulled by alcohol was a hazard to both safety and productivity. And for clerks and others who worked with numbers, the alertness, focus, and all-around mental clearness coffee afforded made it the ideal drug. Coffee showed up in Europe at exactly the right moment. It helped disperse Europe's alcoholic fog, fostering a heightened alertness and attention to detail, and, as employers soon discovered, dramatically improving productivity.

Surely it is more than a coincidence that caffeine and the minute hand on clocks arrived at more or less the same historical moment. For medieval man,

and especially for the man doing physical labor outdoors, the angle of the sun mattered more than the hand of the clock. There had been no minute hand because there had been no need to subdivide the hour. But new kinds of work demanded much closer attention to time. Work now was not only moving indoors but also being reorganized on the principle of the clock, regularized and routinized, and this shift called for a new kind of discipline that coffee and tea could help to enforce.

But the most important contribution that caffeine made to modern work—and, in turn, to the rise of capitalism—was to liberate us from the fixed rhythms of the sun, an astronomical mechanism that also sets the clocks of our bodies. Before caffeine, the whole idea of a late shift, let alone a night shift, was inconceivable—the human body simply would not permit it. But the power of caffeine to keep us awake and alert, to hold back the natural tide of exhaustion, freed us from the circadian* rhythms of our biology and so, along with the arrival of artificial light, opened the frontier of night to the possibilities of work. The gift of caffeine to human kind allowed us to adapt our bodies and our minds to the requirements of modern life.

And industry. (2) What coffee did for clerks and intellectuals, tea would soon do for the English working class. Indeed, it was tea from the East Indies—heavily sweetened with sugar from the West Indies—that fueled the Industrial Revolution. We think of England as a tea culture, but coffee, initially the cheaper drink by far, dominated at first. It wasn't until the British East India Company (which had limited access to coffee-producing regions) began trading regularly with China in the first part of the eighteenth century that tea could displace coffee as the principal medium for delivering caffeine to the English bloodstream.

(Adapted from Michael Pollan, *This Is Your Mind on Plants*, 2021)

＜注＞　circadian*：約 24 時間の周期で変動する

設問１　下線部(1)を和訳しなさい。

設問２　下線部(2)を本文に即して日本語で説明しなさい。

2 次の英文を読み，設問に答えなさい。（*, **, *** を付した語には，注があります。）

Ashpenaz, the overseer of King Nebuchadnezzar's court, had a major problem. In 597 BC, the king of Babylon had destroyed the kingdom of Judah and brought back thousands of captives, many of them the noblemen of Jerusalem. As was customary in his kingdom, Nebuchadnezzar wanted some of them to serve in his court, so he commanded Ashpenaz to seek out "children in whom was no blemish*, but well favoured, and skilful in all wisdom, and cunning in knowledge, and understanding science." These lucky children were to be (a) in the language and culture of Babylon so that they could serve in the administration of the empire, which (b) from the Persian Gulf to the Mediterranean Sea. As part of their education, they would get to eat royal meat and drink royal wine.

And there lay the problem.(1) One of his favorites, a boy named Daniel, refused to touch the food. For religious reasons, he could only eat meat that was prepared according to Jewish laws, and he asked that he and his friends be given a diet of vegetables instead. Ashpenaz would have liked to comply with the boy's wishes, but he was afraid that the king would notice: "Once he sees your unhealthy-looking faces, different from the other children your age, it will cost me my head."

Daniel tried to assure Ashpenaz that Ⓐ [diminish / not / serve / the king / the vegetarian diet / their capacity / to / would]. As a person "cunning in knowledge, and understanding science," he proposed an experiment. Try us for ten days, he said. Take four of us and feed us only vegetables; take another group of children and feed them the king's meat and wine. After ten days, compare the two groups and see if there is a difference.

Even if you haven't read the story, you can probably (c) what happened next. Daniel and his three companions did well on the vegetarian diet. The king was so (d) with their wisdom and learning—not to mention

their healthy appearance—that he gave them a favored place in his court, where "he found them ten times better than all the magicians and astrologers** that were in all his realm." Later Daniel became an interpreter of the king's dreams and survived a memorable encounter with a lion.

Believe it or not, the biblical story of Daniel sums up in a profound way the conduct of experimental science today. Ashpenaz asks a question about causation: Will a vegetarian diet cause my servants to be less healthy? Daniel proposes a methodology to deal with any such questions: Set up two groups of people, identical in all relevant ways. Give one group a new treatment (a diet, a drug, etc.), while the other group (called the control group) either gets the old treatment or no special treatment at all. (2) If, after a suitable amount of time, you see a significant difference between the two supposedly identical groups of people, then the new treatment must be the cause of the difference.

Nowadays we call this a controlled experiment. The principle is simple. To understand the causal effect of the diet, we would like to compare what happens to Daniel on one diet with what would have happened if he had stayed on the other. But we can't go back in time and rewrite history, so instead we do the next best thing: we compare a group of people who get the treatment with a group of similar people who don't. It's obvious, but nevertheless crucial, that the groups be comparable and representative of some population. If these conditions are met, then the results should be transferrable to the whole population. To Daniel's credit, he seems to understand this. He isn't just asking for vegetables on his own behalf: if the trial shows the vegetarian diet is better, then all the Israelite servants should be allowed that diet in the future.

Daniel also understood that it was important to compare groups. In this respect he was already more sophisticated than many people today, who choose a trendy diet (for example) just because a friend went on that diet and lost weight. If you choose a diet based only on one friend's experience, you are essentially saying that you believe you are similar to your friend in all relevant

details: age, physical make-up, home environment, previous diet, and so forth. That is a lot to assume.

Another key point of Daniel's experiment is that it was prospective: the groups were chosen in advance. By contrast, suppose that you see twenty people in a TV commercial who all say they lost weight on a diet. That seems like a pretty large sample size, so some viewers might consider it convincing evidence. But that would amount to basing their decision on the experience of people who already had a good response. For all you know, for every person who lost weight, ten others just like him or her tried the diet and had no success. But of course, they weren't chosen to appear on TV.

Daniel's experiment was strikingly modern in all these ways. Prospective controlled trials are still a sign of sound science. However, Daniel didn't think of one thing: confounding bias***. Suppose that Daniel and his friends are healthier than the control group to start with. In that case, their robust appearance after ten days on the diet may have nothing to do with the diet itself; it may reflect their overall health. Maybe they would have done even better if they had eaten the king's meat!

(Adapted from Judea Pearl and Dana Mackenzie, *The Book of Why: The New Science of Cause and Effect*, 2018)

＜注＞ blemish*：欠点
astrologer**：占星術師
confounding bias***：交絡バイアス

設問１ （ a ）～（ d ）に入る最も適切な動詞を以下から選び，それぞれ適切な形にして解答欄に書き入れなさい。

educate, guess, impress, stretch

設問２　下線部(1)が示す内容を本文に即して説明しなさい。

設問３　Ⓐの［　　］内の語句を最も適切な順序に並べ替え，解答欄に書きなさい。

設問４　下線部(2)を和訳しなさい。

設問５　以下の(ア)～(エ)の文のうち，本文の内容と合致するものを１つ選び，解答欄に記号で書きなさい。

(ア) In controlled experiments, the results cannot be extended to the entire population unless the subjects represent the population.

(イ) In Daniel's experiment, all the children were given both vegetarian and non-vegetarian meals and they did well on both.

(ウ) In Daniel's experiment, both groups were identical in every aspect to start with.

(エ) People appearing in TV commercials are usually chosen before the results of the treatment are known.

3 次の英文を読み，設問に答えなさい。（*, ** を付した語には，注があります。）

My youngest daughter Aina is sitting on my lap as I write this. She is six months old, happy, and curious about everything; it's hard to keep her hands away from the keyboard. She keeps making noises. She laughs, she cries, and she babbles*. She can communicate clearly: she had no difficulty letting me know she wanted to be lifted off her blanket on the floor a little while ago. But she did this without language. She cannot talk yet; those sounds she makes do not constitute a language. She will no doubt be able to say "Daddy" to me in a few months, but not yet.

At what point can we say that a child has begun to use language? Every parent knows that learning to speak is a long process for a child; it takes several years from that first babbling *da da da* until children can express themselves (a) in complete sentences in their mother tongue. The child (b) develops from a language-less baby to a language-equipped three-year-old who never stops talking. Children usually start by babbling, practising speech sounds, when they are more or less the same age as Aina. The first recognisable words tend to appear around their first birthday, and by the second they start putting together words into simple phrases. Grammar—in the more adult sense of complete sentences—gets going at about three years old. The exact ages can vary (c) from one child to another, but most children go through more or less the same stages in (d) the same order although at different rates.

Whether the child is learning one or more languages seems to have little impact on the process, nor does it make much difference whether the language is signed or spoken. Children are good at learning languages, irrespective of the particular form and circumstances as long as they grow up surrounded by language. They are remarkably good at learning languages compared with how much effort and conscious practice is required for many other skills, such as

mathematics or music, which are actually no more complicated than language.

Ⓐ It is possible, in principle, that language suddenly appeared fully formed during human evolution without any gradual or intermediate forms. That notion, a linguistic Big Bang, has been championed by linguists such as Noam Chomsky. But it is extremely improbable, biologically speaking, that such a complex characteristic as our capacity for speech just popped up out of nowhere. It is more likely that language evolved in several stages in the same way, for instance, as our large brains did or our tool-making ability. This may have been a process similar to the one children go through, or the process may have been entirely different and involved intermediate forms. But some form of evolution must have occurred on the journey from non-speaking ape to speaking humans. At some point there must have been linguistic precursors, simpler forms of language. There must also have been a protolanguage, the first one that could be called a language.

Ⓑ Nevertheless, it still takes a couple of years for children to acquire language. At what point during this process can we call what children are doing *language*? The first time the child utters sounds? Hardly; the cries of the newborn are not language in any meaningful sense. The first time the child achieves a complete and grammatically correct sentence? Hardly that either; children can speak at full speed long before their grammar is up and working. It would have to be somewhere along the journey between those points. But establishing a definitive moment that we can point to is difficult. I will not be able to write in my diary in a few months: "Today Aina started using language." I may be able to write: "Today Aina said *Daddy* for the first time." But if we are going to call the first word she uses language, we would have to be agreed that it is the production of words that defines language, and that is by no means obvious.

Ⓒ We cannot draw an absolutely clear dividing line between the apes and humans among our ancestors. An increasing number of human characteristics

and behaviours gradually emerge with the passage of millions of years. Perhaps the same is true of language. Perhaps there never was a single ape-man who could be called the first speaker, in just the same way that no one day will be the first day my daughter speaks. Or it may be purely a matter of definition as to who was the first person ever to speak.

Ⓓ We face the same problem when talking about the origin of language in ancient times. We descend from ape-like ancestors, and over the course of several million years our branch of the family tree has gradually evolved into the human beings we are today. Those apes were no more capable of language than chimpanzees or baboons** are today; we, on the other hand, can talk. Somewhere along that evolutionary journey language must have arisen.

In that case, what was it that evolved? Language, of course, but what more concretely? There are several aspects of language that are important to distinguish here. The sounds transmitted through the air when someone speaks are the only aspect of language that is directly observable. But (1) that is not its most interesting dimension. There are at least two more important aspects. One is the language faculty to be found in our brains which enables us to use and understand language. The other is language as a social system: the system that allows people to reach agreement on what means what so that we are able to understand one another.

Noam Chomsky regards the language faculty in our brains as the most important aspect and the one that has to be explained by linguistics. This turns the origin of language into a purely biological issue: How did our brains evolve to contain a language component? Many other scientists doing research into the origin of language consider the social system of language to be more interesting. From that perspective the key question instead is how the social interactions of human beings evolved in such a way that our shared system of communication became a language.

People differ from other apes both biologically and socially. (2) A young

chimpanzee lacks a biological language faculty and can never really learn to use language even when it is brought up in a human social environment. But a human child that is forced to grow up without human social contact and communication does not learn to use language either. Meeting both the biological and social requirements is essential to language. And so both the biological and social changes that underpin language need to be taken into account in the search for its origin.

(Adapted from Sverker Johansson, *The Dawn of Language: How We Came to Talk*, 2019)

＜注＞ babble*：喃語を発する
baboon**：ヒヒ

設問１ （ a ）～（ d ）に入る最も適切な語を以下から選び，それぞれ解答欄に書き入れなさい。

enormously, fluently, gradually, roughly

設問２ 枠線内の４つの段落Ⓐ～Ⓓを最も適切な順序に並べ替え，解答欄に記号で書きなさい。

設問３ 下線部(1)について，著者はなぜこのように述べるのか，本文に即して日本語で説明しなさい。

設問４ 下線部(2)を和訳しなさい。

4 次の文章を読み，設問に英語で答えなさい。

本との出合いは，十代の頃だ。移動する時間が長く，そのときに読んでいた。他にすることもないし，電車，バスなどの一時間くらいはちょうどいいように思える。くたびれてしまって寝ていた時間もかなりあるが。最近は携帯があるので，以前とは明らかに車内光景は変わってしまっているが，それでどのくらい本を読む人がいるかについては関心をもっている。

ひとつお伝えしたいのは，迷ったら本は買ったほうがいいということだ。

基本的に，日本は本が安い。最近は少しずつ値上がりしているものの，幅広いジャンルの本がこんなにもある国は他にはそうそうないような気がするし，総合的に考えれば，読まない本があってもあまり気にしないようにしている。たとえば一冊買って失敗したとしても，それで結局のところ大きな失敗をすることはない。絶対にないといえる。だから，興味をもったら，とりあえず分からなくても買う。買ったところで，結局読まずにそのまま捨てるということがあってもいいとさえ思う。実際，私自身そういうこともある。

どんなかたちで役に立つかは分からないが，それが本のよさでもある。エンターテインメントであったり知的刺激であったり，さまざまなことを経験することができる。

本を通じてたとえ他人から見たら意味のなさそうなことでも，自分なりに解釈してみることが，想像力や創造力を生み出す源泉になるのではないだろうか。

（羽生善治『直感力』，2012 より一部改変）

設問　Explain what the author thinks about buying books and why he thinks so in about 80 words.